Unit II

- **Individual behavior**
- **Personality**
- **Perception and its role in individual decision making**
- **Learning, Motivation**
- **Hierarchy of needs theory**
- **Theory X and Y**
- **Motivation- Hygine theory**
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What is behaviour?

Behaviour is the pattern of how a person responds to a stimulus.

Responses can be influenced by

Culture: The shared patterns of behaviors and interactions, cognitive constructs, and affective understanding that are learned through a process of socialization. These shared patterns identify the members of a culture group while also distinguishing those of another group.

Attitude: A hypothetical construct that represents an individual's like or dislike for an item; mental position relative to a way of thinking or being.

Values: Beliefs of a person or social group in which they have an emotional investment (either for or against something)

Ethics: Response based on what is right; the process of determining how one should hold the interests of various stakeholders, taking into account moral values/principles.

Authority: The power or right to give orders or make decisions Coercion: obtaining a response by use force; compelling a person to behave in an involuntary way (whether through action or inaction) by use of threats/intimidation. Persuasion: obtaining a response by convincing a person; the process of guiding people toward the adoption of an idea, attitude, or action by rational and symbolic (though not always logical) means. It is strategy of problem-solving relying on "appeals" rather than force.

Genetics: Inherited from parents; pertaining to genes or any of their effects.

PERSONALITY

Definitions of Personality

While there are many different theories of personality, the first step is to understand exactly what is meant by the term *personality*. The word personality itself stems from the Latin word *persona*, which referred to a theatrical mask work by performers in order to either project different roles or disguise their identities.

A brief definition would be that personality is made up of the characteristic patterns of thoughts, feelings and behaviors that make a person unique. In addition to this, personality arises from within the individual and remains fairly consistent throughout life.

Some other definitions of personality:

"Personality refers to individuals' characteristic patterns of thought, emotion, and behavior, together with the psychological mechanisms -- hidden or not -- behind those patterns. This definition means that among their colleagues in other subfields of psychology, those psychologists who study personality have a unique mandate: to explain whole persons." (Funder, D. C., 1997)

“Although no single definition is acceptable to all personality theorists, we can say that personality is a pattern of relatively permanent traits and unique characteristics that give both consistency and individuality to a person's behavior."(Feist and Feist, 2009)

Components of Personality

So what exactly makes up a personality? As described in the definitions above, you would expect that traits and patterns of thought and emotion make up an important part. Some of the other fundamental characteristics of personality include:

Consistency - There is generally a recognizable order and regularity to behaviors. Essentially, people act in the same ways or similar ways in a variety of situations.

Psychological and physiological - Personality is a psychological construct, but research suggests that it is also influenced by biological processes and needs.

It impacts behaviors and actions - Personality does not just influence how we move and respond in our environment; it also *causes* us to act in certain ways.

Multiple expressions - Personality is displayed in more than just behavior. It can also be seen in our thoughts, feelings, close relationships and other social interactions.

TYPES OF PERSONALITIES

There are as many personalities as there are persons. Personalities differ in traits. A trait is any

distinguishable, relatively enduring way in which one individual differs from another. Though behavioural researchers have attempted to identify the personality traits, the 16 traits are generally accepted ones. These are listed in following table

1. Reserved Vs Outgoing
2. Less Intelligent Vs More Intelligent
3. Affected by Feelings Vs Emotionally Stable
4. Submissive Vs Dominant
5. Serious Vs Happy-Go-Lucky
6. Expedient Vs Conscientious
7. Timid Vs Venturesome
8. Tough-Minded Vs Sensitive
9. Trusting Vs Suspicious
10. Practical Vs Imaginative
11. Forthright Vs Imaginative
12. Self-assured Vs Shrewd
13. Conservative Vs Experimenting
14. Group-Dependent Vs Self-Sufficient
15. Uncontrolled Vs Controlled
16. Relaxed Vs Tense

Groups of above traits serve as basis for classifying personalities into types. Based on these groups, following are the main types of personalities:

1. Introvert and Extrovert Personalities
2. Type A and Type B Personalities
3. Judging and Perspective Personalities

1. INTROVERT AND EXTROVERT PERSONALITY

Introvert Personalities : Persons with introvert orientations are primarily oriented to the subjective world. Such people look inward and process their thoughts and ideas within themselves. They also avoid social contacts and initiating interaction with other group mates. They enjoy solitude.

Extrovert Personalities: Extroverts are friendly, sociable, lively, gregarious, aggressive and expressing their feelings and ideas openly. Accordingly, they are more, suitable and successful for the positions that require considerable interaction with others. Sales activities, publicity departments, personal-relations unit, etc. are the-examples of activities suitable for extroverts.

Introverts vs Extroverts

Introverts	**Extroverts**
Like quiet for concentration	Like variety and action
Tend to be careful with details, dislike sweeping statements	Tend to work faster, dislike complicated procedure
Have trouble remembering names and faces	Are often good at greeting people
Like to think a lot before they act, sometimes without acting	Often act quickly, sometimes without thinking.
Work contentedly alone	Like to have people around.
Have some problems communicating	Usually communicate freely
Tend not to mind working on one project for a long time uninterruptedly	Are often impatient with long slow jobs
Dislike telephone intrusion and interruptions	Often do not mind interruptions of answering the telephone

2. TYPE A AND TYPE B PERSONALITY

Type A Personality : Type A people are characterized by hard-working, highly achievement-oriented, impatient, have sense of time urgency, aggressive, with competitive drive, etc. Such people tend to be very productive and work very hard. In fact, they are workaholics.

Type B Personalities : Easy-going, sociable, free from urgency of time, laid-back and non-competitive are the characteristics of Type B personalities. Such people do better on task involving judgments, accuracy rather than speed and team work.

3. JUDGING AND PERCEPTIVE PERSONALITIES

Judging Personalities : People with judging personality types like to follow a plan, make decisions and need only that what is essential for their work.

Perceptive Personalities : These are the people who adapt well to change, want to know all about a job and at times may get overcommitted.

JUDGING Vs PERCEPTIVE PERSONALITIES

Judging Type	**Perceptive Type**
Work best when they can plan work and follow the plan	Adapt well to changing situations
Like to get things settled	Do not mind leaving things open for alterations
May decide things too quickly	May have trouble, making decisions
May not notice new things that need to be done	May start too many projects and have difficulty in finishing them
Want only essential things needed to begin their work	Want to know all about their work
Tend to be satisfied once they reach a judgement on a thing or situation or person	Tend to be curious and welcome new information on a thing or a situation or a person

THEORIES OF PERSONALITY

As there are so many definitions of personality, so are theories of personality as well. As such, there is no consensus among the theories about the theories of personality. Among several theories, the more prominent are: type, trait, psychoanalytic, social learning and self theory. A brief discussion of each follows.

TYPE THEORY

Like other sciences, the first students of human nature also endeavoured to study human personality by classifying them into certain types. Personality classification was made on two bases: (i) Body Build, and (ii) Psychological Factors. In case of former basis, personalities were classified into types by establishing relationship between one's body build/feature and personality. Accordingly, persons having a short or plumb body build were characterized as sociable and relaxed, tall and thin persons as restrained, self-conscious and fond of solitude and those with heavy set muscular body build as noisy, callous and fond of physical activity.

Admittedly, and individual's body build/physique may exert some influence on his/her personality, yet the relationship between the two seems much subtle than what such classification implies. Personality types on the basis of psychological factors are based on the assumption that personality is the totality of person's interacting sub-systems. Then, personalities are, accordingly, classified into two type: (i) introverts, and (ii) extroverts. Introverts are those who primarily look inward at themselves, avoid social contacts and interactions with others, quiet and enjoy solitude. On the contrary, extroverts are sociable, friendly, gregarious, aggressive, etc. No doubt, typing personalities into introverts and extroverts looks simple and interesting, but it does not serve much of its purpose in understanding personalities in more detail and depth. The reason is that, as stated earlier also, most of the people tend to be neither introverts nor extroverts but ambiverts, that is, they are in between the two extremes of introverts and extroverts.

TRAIT THEORY

Some psychologists have tried to understand personality on the basis of individual's traits. Trait is an enduring characteristic of a person in which he/she differs from another. Popular human characteristics include shy, aggressive, submissive, lazy, ambitious, loyal and timid. In practice, the more consistent the characteristics and more frequently these occur in diverse situations, the more important traits become in describing a person. Thus, traits can be described as individual variables or dimensions.

Trait theory is based on the following three assumptions:

1. Traits are common to many individuals but vary in absolute amounts between individuals.

2. Traits are relatively stable. Their consistent occurrence influences the human behaviours

3. One's traits can be inferred by measuring his/her behavioural indicators.

Allport and Cattell have been among the early psychologists who made efforts to isolate individual traits. In his study, he identified as many as 17,953 traits. Obviously predicting human behaviour based on such a large number becomes virtually impossible realizing this there was a need for reducing such large number to a manageable one, Cattell first isolated 171 traits and, then, the same reduced to 16 traits, which be termed as source of primary traits.

Thus, trait theory of personality attempts to understand how a set of personality variable exerts on one's behaviour. However, this theory suffers from one lacuna is that it is very descriptive rather than analytical. In fact, no hard evidence supports trait theory as a valid measure of personality.

PSYCHOANALYTICAL THEORY

Psychoanalytical theory is yet another way of understanding personality. The basic notion on which psychoanalytical theory is based on is that human behaviour is influenced more unseen forces than conscious and rational thoughts. Sigmund Freud developed psychoanalytical theory based on his 40 years of writings and clinical practice. Freud's clinical experiments his patients behaviour led him to conclude that behaviour is mainly influenced by unconscious framework. This unconscious frame work is composed of three elements-id, ego and super ego. Freud himself consider the division as hypothetical one rather than specific structure of one personality.

A brief description of these three elements ld, ego and super ego.

The Id: The id is innate and the source of psychic energy. It seeks immediate gratification for biological or instinctual needs. It lies raw and, thus, remains basic to the individual throughout life. The id follow the basic principle of all human life i.e, the immediate discharge of psychic energy (libido) produced by animal drives such as sex and aggression which if pent up, causes tension in the personality system. The id, by immediately reducing tension, thus, obeys the pleasure principle. As id knows and obeys no laws and rules, it may result in, as freud himself felt, danger for the person concerned and for society as well.

The Ego: The id is unconscious part while the ego is conscious part of human personality. The ego is associated with reality. It checks the id through logic and intellect. The ego can best be described as controlling id through realities. A starving man cannot control or satisfy his hunger simply by eating images, but by really having food. Thus, here lies the role of ego i.e. reality in satisfying hunger or reducing tension created by hunger.

The Super Ego: The super ego represents system of values, norms, and ethics that guide and govern a person to behave properly in the society. In one sense, the super ego can be described as conscience. It provides norms and values to ego to determine what is wrong or right at a given time--in given situation/society. In other words, the super ego judges whether an action/ behaviour is right or wrong as per the set norm and standards of the society.

In total, it can be concluded that the id seeks pleasure, the ego verifies reality and the super ego strives for perfection.

As mentioned earlier, Freud's psychoanalytical theory is hypothetical based on theoretical conception. However, it does not provide any measure for its scientific verification and validity. That is why this theory is not found very relevant and appropriate in predicting human behaviour. Nonetheless, it provides the idea of unconscious motivation which adds to the understanding of human behaviour in a better manner.

SOCIAL LEARNING THEORY

In fact, human behaviour is generally either learnt or modified by way of learning.

Learning can simply be defined as any change in one's behaviour that occurs as a result of experience. In other words, learning occurs when an individual behaves as a result of experience in a manner different from the way he/she formerly behaved.

Learning occurs through two ways: (i) Reinforcement, and (ii) Observing others. Learning by observing others is also called 'vicarious learnings'. The social learning theory emphasizes on how an individual behaves or acts in a given situation. This theory holds the view that the specific characteristics of a situation determine how an individual will behave in such situation. Admittedly, situation evokes an individual's behavioural pattern. At the same time, it is also true that an individual's behaviour also at times influences the situational conditions. Individual, by selectively attending to what is happening, can prevent certain conditions from impinging on him/her. Thus, the relationship between the situation and the individual is of reciprocal pattern.

SELF THEORY

Carl Rogers is credited with self theory of personality. This theory is also described as 'phenomenological' which studies individual's subjective experience, feelings and his concepts of world and self. Rogers self theory is composed of perceptions of the 'I' or 'me'. The following four factors are included in self theory:

I. Self-Image : By nature, every person has certain beliefs about what or who he/she is. In other words, self-image is one's image of oneself. This is how one sees oneself.

II. Ideal-Self: The ideal-self refers to what one would like to look like. The basic line of difference between self-image and ideal-self is that the former indicates the reality of a person whereas the latter implies the ideality of the person. The latter one, i.e., ideal self stands more important to motivate an individual to behave in a particular manner.

Ill.Looking Glass-Self : This refers to how others are perceiving the individual. In other words, this means the way an individual thinks people perceive about him and not the way people actually see him. This indicates that one's belief about self is a reflection of others' perception about the person.

IV. Real-Self : The real-self is what one actually is. The first three self-concepts relate to an individual's perception about himself/herself. They may be the same or different from the real- self.

People perceive the same situation differently depending upon their conception of the situation.

This, in turn, influences them to behave differently. Thus, in any attempt of analyzing and understanding organization behaviour, the self-concept plays a significant role in reacting/behaving in a particular manner.

PERCEPTION

Perception (from the Latin *perceptio, percipio*) is the organization, identification, and interpretation of sensory information in order to represent and understand the environment. All perception involves signals in the nervous system, which in turn result from physical or chemical stimulation of the sense organs. For example, vision involves light striking the retina of the eye, smell is mediated by odor molecules, and hearing involves pressure waves. Perception is not the passive receipt of these signals, but is shaped by learning, memory, expectation, and attention. Perception involves these "top-down" effects as well as the "bottom-up" process of processing sensory input. The "bottom-up" processing transforms low-level information to higher-level information (e.g., extracts shapes for object recognition). The "top-down" processing refers to a person's concept and expectations (knowledge), and selective mechanisms (attention) that influence perception. Perception depends on complex functions of the nervous system, but subjectively seems mostly effortless because this processing happens outside conscious awareness.http://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Perception

Organizational Behavior Perceptions & Attributes

People's perceptions and attributions influence how they behave in their organization. Perception describes the way people filter, organize and interpret sensory information. Attribution explains how people act, determining how people react to the actions of others as well. Accurate perception allows employees to interpret what they see and hear in the workplace effectively to make decisions, complete tasks and act in ethical manner. Faulty perceptions lead to problems in the organization, such as stereotyping, that lead people to erroneously make assumptions.

Managing Perceptions

When people in organizations find themselves in unfamiliar, ambiguous situations, they tend to have difficulty coping. Effective business professionals handle objections to their ideas by clearly stating the benefits of their position to all parties. By presenting a compelling case for their ideas, these people get approval for their proposed strategy even if opposed by apathy or confrontation. By actively recognizing people's perceptions and attributions, effective leaders build justifications for their approach and get support when needed.

Handling Attributions

People commonly attribute success to skill, luck or chance. People tend to react to situations based on what they think caused the event. Just as perceptions can be faulty, attributions can be inaccurate as well. Organizations can ensure people attribute actions more effectively by providing diversity training. This helps prevent a hostile work environment for people from different cultures. By training people to make more accurate attributions, daily operations run more smoothly. This helps reduce faulty attributions, such as managers who attribute exceptional performance to chance as they resist assigning more challenging work to qualified individuals they view as lucky.

Explaining Behavior

People tend to evaluate other people on their ability, effort or personality. They also attribute luck or the difficulty of task to a success or failure. The attributions people make for their own behavior also influence their performance in the organization. For example, successful workers who succeed at tasks after completing training exercises usually increase their confidence levels. Those who fail may consider themselves unlucky or blame others. People's perceptions and judgment of another person's action depend on if reactions occur consistently or inconsistently. Recognizing that people have cultural beliefs, motives and intentions helps explain behavior and helps rectify non-productive situations. By understanding the common causes of behavior, individuals can react more appropriately.

Minimizing Bias

Minimizing biases that distort attribution can help foster effective team work. Using tips, techniques,

tools and resources available from websites such as the Cultural Navigator site, organizations can reduce the rate at which people selectively interpret events based on their experience, background and attitudes. Edward Thorndike, an American psychologist, observed that perception of one trait is influenced by other traits. Known as the halo effect, this bias causes people to judge people they find attractive as smart. Providing training to managers to make more accurate perceptions helps them conduct more effective employment interviews, performance reviews and daily management tasks.

LEARNING

Meaning and Definition: What is learning? In simple words, learning is a change in behaviour as a result of experience. Different psychologists and behavioural scientists have defined learning differently.

According to Stephen P. Robbins, "Learning is any relatively permanent change in behaviour that occurs as a result of experience."

In the opinion of Streets and Porter, "Learning can be defined as relatively permanent change in behaviour potentiality that results from reinforced practice or experience."

Now, on an overall basis learning can be defined as a change in behaviour acquired through experience. The above definitions of learning have several components that deserve clarification.
First, learning involves change, be it good or bad.

Second, the change in behaviour must be relatively permanent. For the matter, a temporary change in behaviour as a result of fatigue or temporary adaptations are not considered learning.

Third, only change in behaviour acquired through experience is considered learning. Therefore, a change in individual's thought process or attitudes, if accompanied by no change in behaviour, would not be learning. For example, the ability to work that is based on maturation, disease, or physical damages would not be considered learning.

Fourth, some form of experience is necessary for learning. Experience may be acquired directly through practice or observation or indirectly, as through reading.

Finally, learning is not confined to our schooling only. As a matter of fact, learning is a life-long process.

MOTIVATION

Meaning of Motivation: The term 'motivation' has been derived from the Latin word 'movere' which

means to move. Motive is anything that initiates or sustains activity. It is an inner state that energises, activates or moves and that directs or channels behaviour towards goals. Motive is a psychological force within an individual that sets him in motion. Behind every human action there is a motive.

Motivation is the process of steering a person's inner drives and actions towards certain goals and committing his energies to achieve these goals. It involves a chain reaction starting with felt needs, resulting in motives which give rise to tension (unfulfilled desires) which causes action towards goals. It is the process of stimulating people to strive willingly towards the achievement of organisational goals.

NATURE OF MOTIVATION

1) Motivation is a Personal and Internal Feeling : Motivation is a psychological phenomenon which generates within an individual. Motives are the energetic forces within a person that drive him to action.

2) Motivation Produces Goal-directed Behaviour Motivation is a behavioural concept that directs human behaviour towards certain goals.

3) Motivation is a Continuous Process : Human needs are unlimited. Therefore, motivation is an ongoing process.

4) Motivation is Complex : Individuals differ in their motivation. Different people seek different things or they work for different reasons. Human needs and motives are varied and they change from time to time. People satisfy their needs in many different ways.

5) Motivation is System-oriented : Motivation is the result of interplay among three groups of factors : (a) influences operating within an individual, e.g., his goals, needs, and values; (b) influences operating within the organisation, e.g., organisation structure, technology, physical facilities and nature of the job, etc.; and (c) forces operating in the external environment, e.g., culture, customs, norms, etc. of the society.

6) Motivation can be Either Positive or Negative : Positive motivation implies use of pay, incentives, etc. to satisfy human needs while negative motivation emphasises penalties, e.g., reprimands, threats of demotion, fear of loss of job, etc.

7) Motivation is Different from Job Satisfaction: Motivation is the drive to satisfy a want and it is concerned with goal-directed behaviour. Satisfaction refers to contentment experienced after the satisfaction of a want. Motivation is the process while satisfaction is the outcome or consequence.

IMPORTANCE OF MOTIVATION

Motivation has been called 'the core of management'. Motivation is one of the most crucial factors that determine the efficiency and effectiveness of an organization. All organizational facilities will

remain useless unless people are motivated to utilise these facilities in a productive manner. High motivation provides the following advantages :

1) Higher Efficiency : Motivation is an effective instrument in the hands of management to maximise efficiency of operations. A worker may be very competent but no activity can take place until the individual is willing to perform that activity. What employees do depends largely on how much and why they want to do. Motivated employees give greater performance than demotivated ones.

2) Optimum Utilisation of Resources : Motivation inspires employees to make best possible use of different factors of production. They work whole-heartedly to apply their abilities and potential in minimising waste and cost. The enterprise can make maximum use of its physical and financial resources.

3) Reduction in Labour Turnover: High motivation leads to job satisfaction of workers. Opportunities for need satisfaction make employees loyal and committed to the organisation. As a result labour absenteeism and turnover are low.

4) Better Industrial Relations: Increased labour productivity in turn results in higher wages for employees. Motivational schemes create integration of individual interests with organisational objectives. There arises a sense .of belonging and mutual cooperation at all levels. Motivation will foster team spirit among workers. This will reduce labour unrest and create better relations between management and workers.

5) Easier Selection : An enterprise that offers abundant financial and non-financial incentives enjoys reputation in the labour market. Therefore, it can easily attract competent persons for filling various vacancies.

6) Facilitates Change : High motivation helps to reduce resistance to change. An organisation has to incorporate changes to cope with environmental changes. Properly motivated employees accept, introduce and implement these changes keeping the organisation effective.

THEORIES OF MOTIVATION

Some of the popular theories of motivation are given below :

1) *Maslow's Need Hierarchy*
2) Herzberg's Hygiene Theory
3) McGregor's Theory X and Theory Y
4) Vroom's Expectancy Theory

MASLOW'S NEED HIERARCHY

According to Maslow there are five categories of human needs:

1) **Physiological Needs:** These are biological needs required to preserve human life. Therefore, these needs are also known as survival needs. They include needs for food, drink, clothing, shelter, sleep, etc. These needs must be satisfied first of all and, therefore, they are a powerful motivating force when thwarted. For example, an individual requires a limited amount of food but he requires it everyday.

2) **Safety Needs:** Once physiological needs are reasonably satisfied, a person wants protection from physical dangers and economic security. Safety needs are thus concerned with protection from danger, deprivation and threat. Organizations can influence these needs through pension schemes, insurance plans, fear of dismissal, etc.

3) **Social Needs:** Man is a social animal as he seeks affiliation (association) without others. Social needs refer to need for belonging, need for acceptance, need for love and affection, etc. Organizations can influence these needs through supervision, communication system, work groups, etc.

4) **Esteem Needs:** Esteem needs are of two types : self-esteem and esteem of others. Self-esteem needs include self-respect, self-confidence, competence, achievement, knowledge and independence. Esteem of others includes reputation, status, recognition. These needs are infinite and thwarting them results in feelings of inferiority, weakness and helplessness.

5) **Self-actualisation Needs:** These are the needs for realising one's full potential, for continued self-development, for being creative. It is the desire of being what one is capable of becoming. The conditions of modern industrial life provide limited opportunity for the satisfaction of self-actualisation.

Critical Appraisal: The theory is widely criticised for the following reasons :

1) Needs are not the only determinant of behavior. There are other motivating factors like perceptions, expectations, experiences, etc.

2) The theory gives an oversimplification of human needs and motivation. Need recognition and fulfilment do not always follow the specific sequence or hierarchy suggested by Maslow.

3) The hierarchy of needs is not always fixed. Different people may have different orders. For example, in case of creative people like singers, painters, etc. self-actualisation need may become a dominant motivating force even before the lower order needs are satisfied. Similarly, the need priorities of the same individual may change over time.

4) Maslow's theory is based on a relatively small sample. It is a clinically derived theory and its unit of analysis is the individual. That is why Maslow presented his model

with apologies to those who insisted on conventional reliability, validity, sampling etc.

5) There is no definite evidence that once a need is satisfied it loses its motivating force. The same need may not lead to the same response in all individuals. Similarly, one particular behavior may be the result of different needs. There is lack of direct cause and effect relationship between need and behavior.

Despite these limitations, Maslow's theory has a commonsense appeal for managers. It is still relevant because needs are important for understanding behavior. The theory provides a convenient conceptual framework for the study of motivation. It helps to explain inter-personal and intra-personal variations in human behavior. For example, he can motivate the worker in the appropriate way. Maslow's theory should be viewed and applied as a general description of human needs.

HERZBERG'S MOTIVATIONHYGIENE THEORY

According to Herzberg, maintenance or hygiene factors are necessary to maintain a reasonable level of satisfaction among employees. These factors do not provide satisfaction to the employees but their absence will dissatisfy them. Therefore, these factors are called dissatisfies. These are not intrinsic parts of a job but they are related to conditions under which a job is performed. They are environmental factors (extrinsic to the job).

On the other hand, motivational factors are intrinsic parts of the job. Any increase in these factors will satisfy the employees and help to improve performance. But a decrease in these factors will not cause dissatisfaction.

Herzberg noted that the two sets of factors are one-dimensional, i.e., their effect can be seen in one direction only. He admitted that the potency of any of the job factors is not solely a function of the nature of the factor itself. It is also related to the personality of the individual who may be either a 'motivation seeker' or a 'maintenance seeker'. A motivation seeker is motivated primarily by the nature of the task and has high tolerance for poor environmental factors. On the other hand, maintenance seeker is motivated primarily by the nature of his environment and tends to avoid motivation opportunities. He is dissatisfied with maintenance factors surrounding the job. He shows little interest in the kind and quality of work.

MAINTENANCE FACTORS	MOTIVATINGFACTORS
Company policy and administration	Achievement
Technical Supervision	Recognition
Inter-personal relationship with peers	Advancement
Inter-relationship with supervisors	Opportunity for growth
Inter-relationship with subordinates	Work items
Salary	Working conditions
Job security	
Personal life	
Status	

Critical Appraisal : Traditionally, job satisfaction and dissatisfaction were viewed as opposite ends of a single continuum. Herzberg's findings indicate that dissatisfaction is not simply the opposite of satisfaction of motivation. Satisfaction and dissatisfaction are independent rather than opposite ends of the same continuum.

Herzberg's theory has been criticised on the following grounds:

1) The theory is based on a small sample of 200 accountants and engineers which is not representative of the workforce in general. Therefore, the theory is not universally applicable.

2) Herzberg's model is method bound and is limited by the critical incident method used to obtain information. When satisfied, people attribute the causes of their feelings to

themselves. When they are dissatisfied, they attribute their failures to outside forces. The interview method used by Herzberg suffers from bias of being able to recall the most recent job conditions and feelings. Therefore, the empirical validity of the theory is doubtful.

3) The theory focuses too much attention on satisfaction rather than on performance level. There is no direct link between satisfaction, motivation and performance. Therefore, Herzberg's two-factor theory is a grossly oversimplified portrayal of the process of motivation.

4) The distinction between maintenance factors and motivating factors is not fixed. What is a maintenance factor (e.g., pay) for a worker in the United States may very much be a motivator for an Indian worker. The theory ignores the dominating influence of the situational variables.

COMPARISON BETWEEN MASLOW'S AND HERZBERG'S MODELS

Herzberg's theory is an extension of Maslow's need priority model. The two models are basically complementary. There is a close similarity between survival needs (physiological, safety and social needs) and dissatisfiers on the one hand and between growth needs (esteem and self-actualisation needs) and satisfiers on the other. Herzberg's hygiene factors can be compared with Maslow's levels one to three and motivators to levels four and five.

Both Maslow and Herzberg models tend to over-simplify the motivational process. Maslow's model is formulated in terms of human needs while Herzberg's model is in terms of rewards or goals. Herzberg has attempted to refine and reinforce on the need priority model and has thrown a new light on the content of work motivation. Herzberg has suggested the use of hygiene factors to avoid dissatisfaction and the use of motivators to improve motivation and job performance. Maslow has given a hierarchical

or sequential arrangement suggesting that any unsatisfied need whether of lower order or higher order will motivate individuals. Despite these apparent differences, the two models show marked similarities. Both models fall to take account of individual differences in motivation.

MASLOW'S VS. HERZBERG'S MODELS

BASIS OF COMPARISON	MASLOW'S MODEL	HERZBERG'S MODEL
Formulation	In terms of needs	In terms of incentives
Order of needs	Hierarchical	No hierarchy
Nature of theory	Discriptive	Prescriptive
Essence of theory	Unsatisfied needs	Gratified needs influence behavior
Motivator	Any unsatisfied need	Only motivating factors
Applicability of motivation	Takes a general view of motivation of all	Takes a specific view of professionals

MCGREGOR'S THEORY X AND THEORY Y

Prof. Douglas McGregor has developed a theory of motivation on the basis of hypothesis relating to human behavior. According to McGregor, the function of motivating people involves certain assumptions about human nature. There are two alternative sets of assumptions which McGregor has described as Theory X and Theory Y.

THEORY X

Theory X of motivation is based on the following assumptions:

1) The average human being has an inherent dislike of work and will avoid it if at all possible.

2) The average person lacks ambition, dislikes responsibility, and prefers to be led.

3) An average human being is inherently self-centred, and indifferent to organizational goals.

4) Most people are by nature resistant to change and want security above all.

5) The average individual is gullible, not very bright, the ready victim of the schemer.

On the basis of these assumptions, the conventional view of management puts forward the following propositions:

1. Management is responsible for organising the elements of productive enterprise – money, materials, equipment, people in the interest of economic gain.

2. With respect to people, management involves directing their efforts, motivating them, controlling their actions and modifying their behavior to fit the needs of the organization.

3. Without active intervention by management, people would be passive – even resistant to organizational needs. They must, therefore, be persuaded, rewarded, punished and controlled.

4. Because of human dislike of work, most people must be coerced, controlled, directed, and threatened with punishment to get them to make adequate effort towards the achievement of organizational objectives.

The above assumptions are negative in nature. Therefore, theory X is a conventional or traditional approach to motivation. External control is considered appropriate for dealing with unreliable, irresponsible and immature people.

THEORY Y

Theory X is based on a faulty conception of human nature. McGregor recognised certain needs that Theory X fails to take into account. These relate to self-fulfillment, ego

satisfaction and the social needs of individual workers. To meet these human needs in business, McGregor suggested a counter approach to management which he called Theory Y. This theory proposes that:

1) Management is responsible for organising the elements of productive enterpise in the interest of economic and social ends.

2) People are not by nature passive or restricted to organizational needs. They become so as a result of experience.

3) Motivation, potential for development, capacity for assuming responsibility and readiness to direct behavior toward organizational goals are present and readiness to direct behavior towards organization goals are present in people, management does not put them into force. It is responsibility of management to make it possible for people to recognise and develop these characteristics for themselves.

4) The essential task of management is to arrange organizational conditions and methods of operations so that people can achieve their own goals best by directing their own efforts towards organizational goals.

Theory Y is based upon the following assumptions:

1) The expenditure of physical and mental efforts in work is as natural as play and rest. The average human being has no inherent dislike for work. Work, if meaningful, may be a source of satisfaction and it can be voluntarily performed.

2) Man will exercise self-control and self-direction in the service of objectives to which he is committed. External control or threat of punishment is not the only means of motivating people to work and achieve organizational goals.

3) Commitment to objectives is a result of the rewards associated with their achievement. The most significant of such rewards, e.g., the satisfaction of ego and self-development needs, can be the direct result of effort directed towards organizational objectives. Once the people have selected their goal, they will pursue it even without close supervision and control.

4) The average human being, under proper conditions, does not shun responsibility. He is ready not only to accept responsibility but also to seek it. Avoidance of responsibility, lack of ambition and emphasis on security are consequences of experience rather than being inherent in human nature.

5) The capacity to exercise a relatively high degree of imagination, ingenuity and creativity in the solution of organizational problems is widely, not narrowly, distributed in the population.

6) Under conditions of modern industrial life, the intellectual potentialities of people are only partially utilised. In reality, people have unlimited potential.

Theory Y represents a modern and dynamic nature of human beings. It is based on assumptions which are nearer to reality. An organization designed on the basis of Theory Y is characterised by decentralisation of authority, job enrichment, participative leadership and two-way communication system. The focus is on self-control and responsible jobs.

COMPARISON BETWEEN THEORY X AND THEORY Y

Critical Appraisal

McGregor's theory of motivation is simple. It helped to crystallise and put into right perspective the findings of the Hawthorne Experiments. It has generated wide ranging and lasting interest in the field of motivation. This theory offers a convenient framework for analysing the relationship between motiation and leadership style. Despite its significance, McGregor's theory has been criticised for various reasons. First, it tends to over-generalise and over simplify people as being one way or the other. People cannot be put into two extreme patterns or stereotypes. The theory overlooks the complex nature of human beings. No enterprising man may belong exclusively either to Theory X or to Theory Y. He may share the traits of both, with emphasis shifting from one set of properties to the other with changing motives (internal) and varying (external) environment. Secondly, McGregor's theory squeezes all managerial styles and philosophies into two extremes of conduct which is devoid of reality. Thirdly, McGregor suggests tacitly that job itself is the key to motivation. But all persons do not look for motivation in the job and not all work can be made intrinsically challenging and rewarding. Lastly, some managers may have Theory Y assumptions about human nature, but they may find it necessary to behave in a very directive and controlling manner with some people in the short run to help them grow up in a developmental sense until they are truly Y people. Theory Y has been criticised as too idealistic. An organization driven solely by Theory Y could not succeed, as some sense of direction and structure was required. Instead, Maslow advocated an improved version of Theory Y that involved an element of structured security and direction taken from Theory X.

A question often posed is which theory (X or Y) is better. Most people believe that one Theory is more desirable and productive than the other. But it may not be best approach for all situations. Theory X might be more suitable in some crisis situations but less appropriate in more routine and formalised situations. In some underdeveloped countries like India Theory X may still be useful at the lower levels of organization. Neither Theory X nor Theory Y is the best for all situations. An amalgam of both the theories may be more useful than either of the two alone. The best approach to motivation is one that is appropriate to the situation. The appropriate theory is contingent upon the nature of the work to be done and the particular needs of the individual. In other words, contingency approach is the best approach to motivation.

VROOM'S EXPECTANCY THEORY

Vroom's expectancy model of motivation is built around the concepts of valence, expectancy and instrumentality.

Valence: Valence implies the strength of a person's desire or preference for a particular outcome. It is importance or value that an individual places on the potential outcomes or reward. For example, a person desires promotion and feels that superior performance is a very strong factor in achieving this goal. His first level outcome is superior performance and his second level outcome is promotion. The first level outcome of his performance thus acquires a positive valence by virtue of its expected relationship to the preferred second level outcome of promotion. A person would be motivated towards superior performance because of the valence for promotion.

Expectancy: It implies the extent to which a person believes that this effort will lead to high performance. It is the possibility that a particular action will lead to the first level outcome. Managers can improve expectancy by matching jobs to people.

Instrumentality: It implies the degree to which a first level outcome will lead to a desired second level outcome. In the above example, superior performance is being seen as instrumentality in getting promotion. Instrumentality is the relationship between first-level outcome (performance) and second-level outcome (promotion). On the other

hand, expectancy is the relationship between efforts and first-level outcome.

Vroom's concept of force is equivalent to motivation. Willingness to expend effort depends on the positive or negative value attached to an outcome. Thus, according to Vroom's theory, motivation is the sum of the product of valence, expectancy and instrumentality.

Motivation (Force) = Valence × Expectancy × Instrumentality

Vroom's Expectancy Model

Critical Evaluation: Some of the managerial implications of expectancy theory are :

a) The theory emphasises expected behaviors.

b) Rewards should be tied to performance.

c) Rewards should be equitable.

d) Focus is on payoffs. People make choice based on what they think they will get rather what they got in the past.

e) Managers should design jobs for performance keeping in view the situational differences.

However, the theory suffers from the following limitations:

a) The theory is difficult to research and apply in practice. It is primarily a theory for the scholar rather than for the practitioner. It is a step in the right direction from the theoretical viewpoint. But it provides very little practical help to managers in solving motivation problems.

b) The theory has not been fully tested empirically. Most studies undertaken to test its viability have been only marginally successful. In fact Vroom himself depended largely upon researches conducted prior to the formulation of his theory.

c) It is overly rational as it is based upon a rational economic view of people. Individuals are viewed as thinking, reasoning beings who evaluate the outcomes of various options and choose the one that promises the optimum result. In practice, people rarely sit down to estimate valences and expectancies.

d) The predictive accuracy of the theory is doubtful. The amount of efforts which individuals are willing to put on the job is influenced by many factors other than valence, expectancy and instrumentality. To be precise the theory has ignored (i) the individual differences in ability to calculate valences and expectancies, (ii) individual differences in the number and type of consequences people consider when making decisions, and (iii) unconscious motivations of behavior as well as impulsive and expressive behavior.